



Popular non-support for international organizations: How extensive and what does this represent?

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Abstract

This paper investigates popular non-support for international organizations (IO), asking two questions. First, are attitudes within the mass public becoming less supportive of IOs? Second, how can we explain these IO attitudes, especially when the mass public appears to know relatively little about specific international institutions? Using survey data from the International Social Survey Programme's National Identity module, fielded across multiple countries in 1995, 2003, and 2013, it reports that on average and within most countries, citizen attitudes about IOs have become less positive over time. To explain these attitudes, this paper argues that citizens tend to group things that appear as “international” such as cross-border economic flows and IOs. While citizens might feel positively or negatively about these international factors, this grouping implies that they view them similarly, based on what they can feel from the international level related to their job and income. Thus, less (more) skilled citizens who are hurt by (who benefit from) economic globalization should express more negative (positive) views about IOs. Controlling for cultural attitudes socialized through education, we find that skill is a statistically significant and substantively strong predictor of IO attitudes. We also show how this individual-level skill difference gets larger in countries that are more and/or less-favorably exposed to economic globalization.

Keywords IO attitudes · Economic skill

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Within many democratic countries, there appears to be a new wave of political populism that includes opposition to international organizations (IOs) and agreements. As evidence on this point, the winner of the 2016 U.S. Presidential election successfully mobilized voters on such a platform, and the Trump administration's decisions in 2017 to withdraw from both the Trans-Pacific Partnership (TPP) and Paris climate agreement represent early steps consistent with an anti-IO agenda. At the 2017 Asia-Pacific Economic Cooperation summit in Vietnam, President Trump declared that "[w]hat we will no longer do is enter into large [international] agreements that will tie our hands, surrender our sovereignty and make meaningful enforcement practically impossible."¹ Indeed, Trump has also described the North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) as "obsolete",² identified the United Nations (UN) as "just a club for people to get together, talk and have a good time",³ and spoken in favor of leaving the World Trade Organization (WTO).⁴

Popular opposition to IOs is clearly not unique to the United States. In June 2016, almost 52% of the electorate across the United Kingdom voted in a referendum to exit the European Union (EU). And in France, Marine Le Pen campaigned in the French Presidential elections on a platform that also included a possible EU exit, although she was ultimately defeated in May 2017. But Euroskepticism nonetheless appears on the rise in most EU countries, including in Germany where 48% of its citizens reported unfavorable attitudes about this regional IO, despite the German political and economic power within it.⁵

It is also important to note that popular non-support for international institutions is not entirely a new phenomenon (O'Brien et al. 2000). (Zürn et al. 2012, 95) describe the "growing protest against and resistance to international institutions" beginning in the 1990s. To further document this trend, one could certainly construct a detailed set of case studies on the continued opposition to particular IOs in individual countries (e.g., why so many Americans opposed the TPP, why so many citizens in the United Kingdom voted to leave the EU, etc.). But focusing on these specific trees risks missing the larger forest of popular non-support for international institutions across many countries. Thus, we consider the more general pattern of IO attitudes within the mass public, asking two related questions. First, are popular IO attitudes getting less supportive? Second, how can we explain IO attitudes, especially when the mass public appears to know relatively little about specific international institutions like the WTO and the UN?⁶

¹ <https://www.whitehouse.gov/briefings-statements/remarks-president-trump-apec-ceo-summit-da-nang-vietnam/> (accessed November 11, 2017).

² Michael R. Gordon and Niraj Chokshi. "Trump Criticizes NATO and Hopes for 'Good Deals' With Russia." *New York Times* January 15, 2017.

³ <http://www.dailymail.co.uk/news/article-4067588/Donald-Trump-says-United-Nations-just-club-people-good-time.html> (accessed September 4, 2017).

⁴ <https://www.theguardian.com/us-news/2018/aug/30/trump-world-trade-organization-tariffs-stock-market> (accessed September 1, 2018).

⁵ Oliver Wright. "Euroscepticism on the rise across Europe as analysis finds increasing opposition to the EU in France, Germany and Spain." *Independent* June 7, 2016.

⁶ Using a 2016 population-based American sample, Bearce and Cook (forthcoming) report that only 36% of respondents are willing to report themselves as familiar with the World Trade Organization and only 55% as familiar with the United Nations.

To answer the first question, we make use of survey data from the International Social Survey Programme's (ISSP) National Identity module, which was fielded across 23 countries in 1995, 34 countries in 2003, and 32 countries in 2013.⁷ This module contains a set of opinion questions related to three different dimensions of international organizations (enforcement, compliance, and national sovereignty). We find that for all dimensions, citizen attitudes in most countries have become less positive over time, consistent with a growing popular opposition to IOs. On this basis, IO attitudes represent an important cross-national phenomenon that needs to be explained: why is there so little societal support for, even hostility towards, international institutions?

Institutional theories from International Relations (IR) provide a minimum of explanatory power. Consider the regimes/institutions debate that began in the early 1980s between the grand IR theories (Krasner 1983). Per institutionalist theory, IOs could facilitate international cooperation through a variety of mechanisms, including reduced transaction costs, information provision, and a longer shadow of the future (e.g., Keohane 1984). But realists countered that due to a lack of centralized enforcement power, IOs actually create little, if any, international cooperation, and when it appears otherwise, a powerful state is acting within the IO consistent with its own national interests (e.g., Mearsheimer 1994).

Not only do these two grand theories have little to say about individual-level attitudes, but it becomes hard to see why citizens would oppose international regimes even when we try to extrapolate their logic downward. Perhaps citizens do not favor much involvement with IOs per the realist logic (i.e., they are ineffective in facilitating international cooperation), but realism provides little explanation for broad popular opposition beyond the belief that the dues paid to various IOs exceed their contribution to international cooperation. And, of course, if citizens believe the institutionalist logic that IOs enhance international cooperation, then they would be expected to favor and not oppose them.

Constructivist theory, looking at which states effectively created these inter-governmental organizations and in whose national interests these international regimes tend to operate, perhaps offers more explanatory power (e.g., Murphy 1994). Per this constructivist logic, it is not hard to understand why citizens in smaller and poorer countries might oppose IOs: their policies largely reflect the interests of the large and powerful states that created them (e.g., U.S. dominance in the IMF leads to painful structural adjustment conditions). But even if this logic helps to explain citizen attitudes in weaker countries, it offers less value in explaining similar IO attitudes in more powerful countries. Why should citizens in large countries like the United States, Germany, and the United Kingdom, for example, hold anti-IO attitudes when their governments arguably dominate, even control, many of these international regimes?

To answer our second question (how can we explain popular IO attitudes?), we draw upon theory from political-economy behavior. Stated simply, our argument is that citizen attitudes about international organizations map largely onto their attitudes about economic globalization, defined as the freer flow of goods and services (i.e., international trade) and factors of production (e.g., labor and capital) across national borders. Globalization creates winners and losers among individuals within a national economy, and the latter set tends to include the less skilled, especially in the advanced industrial

⁷ <http://www.gesis.org/issp/modules/issp-modules-by-topic/national-identity/> .

democracies. Citizens may not know much about specific IOs, but they associate them generally with international economic forces that they can feel at least indirectly. Individuals who potentially benefit from globalization, namely the more skilled, should thus hold more favorable attitudes about IOs. Conversely, the less skilled, potentially hurt by international immigration, international trade, and international capital mobility, would be expected to have less favorable IO attitudes.⁸

This understanding leads to a series of testable hypotheses. The first is that pro-IO attitudes should be positively correlated with education, even when controlling for nationalist and globalist attitudes that might be socialized through education (an alternative explanation for a positive relationship between pro-IO attitudes and educational attainment). The second hypothesis considers variation at the national-level, proposing that the education difference at the individual-level should be influenced by the country's exposure to the forces of economic globalization, namely immigration, trade openness, and direction of capital flows.

Using a composite measure of IO attitudes drawn from the most recent wave (2013) of the ISSP's National Identity module, we find support for these hypotheses. Even when controlling for attitudes about nationalism and cosmopolitanism that may be socialized through education, education is positively associated with a more favorable attitude about IOs. Indeed, this education effect is stronger than any other material variable, stronger than political partisanship, and stronger than nationalism in explaining IO attitudes. We also find that this observed difference in IO attitudes between more and less skilled individuals increases in countries with more immigrants, decreases in countries with greater trade protection, and also decreases in countries experiencing greater investment inflows. These results cannot be easily explained by cultural attitudes that have been socialized through education, offering further evidence that the mass public thinks about IOs based on their experience with economic globalization.

1 Non-support for IOs

Before presenting our evidence to document the extent of societal support for international institutions, it is important to acknowledge the research that has already been conducted on this subject. There is, of course, an extensive research program on attitudes concerning the European Union (Hobolt and De Vries 2016), including a lively debate about whether EU support is driven more by economic interests (e.g. Gabel 1998) or by cultural identities (e.g., Carey 2002; McLaren 2002). Despite what is known about EU attitudes, it remains unclear how much one can generalize from this specific regional IO. Is the recent rise in Euroskepticism (De Vries 2018) consistent with broader anti-IO attitudes? Or - based on the relatively high salience of the EU (when compared to other IOs) at least for citizens in participating European democracies - is it atypical of most international institutions?

⁸ The introductory essay by Copelovitch and Pevehouse usefully separates populism, with its demands for economic redistribution, from nationalism, efforts to reclaim sovereignty from international arrangements. In their typology of the backlash against international organizations (Figure 1), Copelovitch and Pevehouse consider how these two dimensions (populism and nationalism) may sometimes overlap (i.e., in the top left cell). Our argument about non-support for IOs, which may include preferences for withdrawal, coming from those hurt by economic globalization, namely the less skilled, best fits into this cell.

Looking beyond the EU, Torgler (2008) and Dellmuth and Tallberg (2015) examine individual-level attitudes about the United Nations across multiple countries, finding general confidence in this global security IO. But the data used in these papers comes from 1995 to 6 (for the first paper) and from 1999 to 2004 (for the second), making it hard to know if they are descriptive of current trends. It is also difficult to ascertain if attitudes about the UN (much like attitudes about the EU) are typical of those about IOs on a broader basis.

Looking at the UN, the WTO, and the World Bank, Kaya and Walker (2014) similarly report general confidence in these three global IOs among citizens in nine European and seven Asian countries. But these data come from the 2000 Asia-Europe Survey, and these scholars conclude with statements about “how attitudes may have changed over time” and the need to compare similar “data from different time periods”. Likewise, they suggest the need to assess attitudes about IOs on a more general basis and not just individually (as done thus far in the literature) since “citizens [tend to] bundle these institutions together in thinking about international affairs” (ibid, 847).

To advance this research program, we need a cross-national survey that 1) has been repeated over time to assess trends and 2) includes questions about international regimes, broadly defined. The International Social Survey Programme’s National Identity module fits both of these criteria. Regarding the first, it was fielded across 23 countries in 1995, 34 countries in 2003, and 32 countries in 2013 with approximately 1300 respondents per country in each wave. It is important to state, however, that the same set of countries does not appear in each wave and, even when they do, the respondents are not necessarily the same. Hence, it is not a true panel survey, but the large sample size for each country should facilitate a comparison across waves to assess trends.

In terms of the second criteria, the National Identity module includes three general questions about “international bodies” and “international organizations” repeated across the waves, although only the first question appeared in the first wave (1995). We can thus only assess a trend for the second two questions by comparing the responses in 2003 with those in 2013. All three IO questions (listed below) ask respondents how much they “agree or disagree with the following statement”. For each question, the surveyed individuals have the same set of options: agree strongly, agree, neither agree nor disagree, disagree, disagree strongly, and non-response.

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1. For certain problems, like environment pollution, international bodies should have the right to enforce solutions.
 2. In general, [COUNTRY] should follow the decisions of international organizations to which it belongs, even if the government does not agree with them.
 3. International organizations are taking away too much power from the [COUNTRY NATIONALITY] government.
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These three questions have desirable properties in that they not only concern IOs on a general basis, they also potentially tap into different dimensions related to international regimes. The first concerns the legitimacy of IO enforcement, the second considers the desirability of compliance with IO decisions, and the third queries about an IO threat to national sovereignty. Given the wording of these questions, we treat agreeing with the first and second and disagreeing with the third as being consistent

with a pro-IO attitude. The bivariate correlations among these IO attitudinal variables do not exceed 0.2, suggesting that they are capturing different dimensions related to international organizations.

Having discussed their desirable properties, it is also important to describe how they may be problematic in terms of their wording and discuss the bias that this question wording is likely to induce among respondents. The most problematic in this regard is the first question with both its prime about “environment pollution” and the tendency of respondents to agree, and not to disagree, with interview statements (acquiescence bias). Both of these factors should induce a pro-IO bias since we expect most respondents to be against pollution (and therefore in favor of international bodies enforcing solutions) and to be more willing to agree (rather than disagree) with any statement. The second question is also likely to create a pro-IO bias but only due to this second factor: the tendency of respondents to agree, which is the response that we treat as being pro-IO for this question.

Conversely, the third question is problematic in the opposite direction: in order to express a favorable attitude about IOs, the respondent must disagree with the statement. Hence, the wording of the third question is likely to create an *anti*-IO bias. Based on these considerations, we expect that respondents should, on average, appear to be the most pro-IO in terms of the first question (*IO Enforcement*) and the least pro-IO in terms of the third (*IO Threat*). There is no simple way to eliminate this acquiescence bias, but it is not problematic in terms of assessing trends (which we will do in this section) since the same biased question was repeated over time. It is also not problematic when comparing countries (as we will do in the next section) since the same biased question was presented to respondents in all countries.

Table 1 presents, by country/question/wave, the percentage of *all* respondents that expressed a favorable IO attitude by agreeing (either strongly or weakly) with *IO Enforcement* and *IO Compliance* and by disagreeing (either strongly or weakly) with *IO Threat*.⁹ This table contains a lot of information, thus requiring a discussion of its organization. The rows sort by country with the columns sorting by question and wave. The columns are grouped by question, showing each wave for that question, to make it easier to assess trends over time for each query. As mentioned above, only the *IO Enforcement* query was part of the module in all three waves, so it includes three columns. Both the *IO Compliance* and *IO Threat* queries were limited to the 2003 and 2013 waves, so they have only two columns.

The most important row in Table 1 comes at the top where we present the cross-national mean for each question in each wave.¹⁰ Here one can observe that for *all three queries*, the percent of respondents willing to express a pro-IO attitude has declined over time. Since each survey has such a large cross-national sample, the margin of error is relatively small ($\pm$

⁹ These calculations thus include those who did not offer a response, so the favorable IO percentages in Table 1 would be slightly larger if we excluded non-respondents. But the very same trends are present either including or excluding non-respondents.

¹⁰ The ISSP makes their country samples more nationally representative by including a *country-specific* WEIGHT variable (GESIS 2015, 746), which we use for calculating the percentages for each country individually. But following the ISSP's advice, this weighting variable is not used for the country-national mean because “there is no total weight usable for international comparison.” “While all ISSP data sets contain a weighting variable, the weights in this variable do not incorporate a common weighting scheme that can be applied to all countries of the same ISSP module” (ibid xv).

Table 1 Percentage of respondents expressing a favorable IO attitude

Wave:	% agreeing with <i>IO Enforcement</i>			% agreeing with <i>IO Compliance</i>		% disagreeing with <i>IO Threat</i>	
	1995	2003	2013	2003	2013	2003	2013
<i>N</i> =	30,894	45,993	43,345	45,993	43,345	45,993	43,345
Cross-national mean (margin of error)	70.0 (±0.5)	63.5 (±0.4)	59.6 (±0.5)	35.4 (±0.4)	33.6 (±0.4)	20.9 (±0.4)	18.2 (±0.4)
Australia	65	62		26		23	
Austria	70	68		28		21	
Belgium			64		33		15
Bulgaria	62	59		37		12	
Canada	75	65		31		26	
Chile		74		42		18	
Croatia			61		26		16
Czech Republic	70	59	61	28	27	17	11
Denmark		59	58	46	41	21	18
Estonia			31		29		14
Finland		53	47	27	23	19	17
France		81	70	37	39	20	15
Georgia			52		28		23
Germany	84	74	70	30	27	30	29
Hungary	81	71	57	26	36	21	16
Iceland			62		45		32
India			58		47		15
Ireland	66	64	57	32	28	33	20
Israel		60	50	43	44	21	17
Italy	91						
Japan	62	59	57	30	21	22	13
Korea (South)		77	77	31	35	9	14
Latvia	53	50	37	47	30	40	13
Lithuania			51		24		14
Mexico			71		51		20
Netherlands	67	74		33		22	
New Zealand	68	52		22		24	
Norway	65	62	50	38	33	20	19
Philippines	62	70	75	22	26	33	42
Poland	72	62		32		19	
Portugal		63	71	39	36	13	9
Russia	76	74	57	40	35	15	17
Slovakia	59	69	57	28	25	13	12
Slovenia	74	76	65	43	43	21	17
South Africa		X	61	39	40	19	11
Spain	72	61	66	44	42	18	12

Table 1 (continued)

Wave:	% agreeing with <i>IO Enforcement</i>			% agreeing with <i>IO Compliance</i>		% disagreeing with <i>IO Threat</i>	
	1995	2003	2013	2003	2013	2003	2013
Sweden	75	68	59	36	29	16	17
Switzerland		77	69	43	34	39	28
Taiwan		74		45		15	
Turkey			53		39		18
United Kingdom	71	64	55	24	22	13	10
United States	67	60	56	28	28	31	29
Uruguay		73		30		15	
Venezuela		81		70		50	

X indicates that the country was included in the wave, but the question was not asked in this country

0.4–0.5%).¹¹ This means that even for the *IO Compliance* query, where the downward trend is the weakest among the three questions, we can still be at least 95% confident that a smaller percentage of individuals agreed with this query in 2013 than in 2003.¹²

The margin of error in each country sub-sample is larger ($\pm 2\text{--}3\%$) so it is harder to assess country-specific trends,¹³ but there are few country rows in Table 1 that run contrary to the cross-national trend of less favorable attitudes about IOs. Looking at the G-5 countries (France, Germany, Japan, the United Kingdom and the United States), the only sign of any upward trend in IO support comes for France on *IO Compliance* (from 37% agreeing in 2003 to 39% in 2013), but this small difference falls within the margin of error. If we look at all the countries for which we have a value for all questions in all waves, then the only ones showing an increase in IO support that is outside the margin of error are Hungary for *IO Compliance* (from 26% agreeing in 2003 to 36% in 2013) and the Philippines for *IO Enforcement* (from 62% agreeing in 1995 to 75% in 2013) and for *IO Threat* (from 33% disagreeing in 2003 to 42% in 2013).¹⁴

¹¹ For 95% confidence, the margin of error is equal to 1.96 multiplied by the square root of $((p)(100-p))/N$ where p is the cell percentage in Table 1 and N is the sample size for that cell.

¹² The same statistically significant trends are apparent if we consider only the 15 countries that were included in all three waves.

Wave:	% agreeing with <i>IO Enforcement</i>			% agreeing with <i>IO Compliance</i>		% disagreeing with <i>IO Threat</i>	
	1995	2003	2013	2003	2013	2003	2013
N=	17,392	18,535	17,526	18,535	17,526	18,535	17,526
Cross-national mean (margin of error)	69.0 (± 0.7)	66.0 (± 0.7)	59.2 (± 0.7)	32.9 (± 0.7)	29.4 (± 0.7)	21.0 (± 0.6)	18.7 (± 0.6)

¹³ Consistency with the margin of error is why we present the country percentages as whole numbers, unlike for the cross-national means (which are presented to the first decimal place).

¹⁴ Tsai (2017, 342–3) examines Asian attitudes towards the UN, the World Bank, and the International Monetary Fund, finding them to be generally favorable at least in 2005–7, speculating that citizens in these “lower-income countries” may be more favorable towards these IOs (compared to Europeans) because they “have been recipients of overseas assistance and development aid”.

On the basis of this evidence across countries and over time, we argue that weak IO support within the mass public represents an important phenomenon that needs to be explained. Indeed, it could even be argued that the median voter in most countries currently holds an attitude that is not supportive of international organizations. How can we account for these attitudes within the mass public?

2 Explaining IO attitudes

Before offering our response to the question posed above, it is important to address why answering this question even matters. Perhaps societal opposition to IOs was relatively unimportant in the twentieth century when international politics was conducted largely by elites, who held mostly positive attitudes about international regimes, with little corresponding input from the mass public even in more democratic countries (Jacobs and Page 2005; Gilens and Page 2014). The domestic ratification of signed international agreements, required in most democracies, sometimes brought these international commitments closer to citizens as voters. But if citizens were not so broadly opposed and not so easy to mobilize by a smaller set of anti-IO elites, then domestic ratification was a high probability political event.

But these circumstances appear to be changing in the twenty-first century. Making new international commitments and even maintaining existing ones may now require pro-IO elites to address these concerns within the mass public instead of simply trying to work around them (as was often possible before). But dealing with citizen concerns about international regimes requires one to first understand on what basis citizens are becoming more opposed. Is this associated with a lack of state power and the perceived inability to control the decision-making within IOs? Or is growing citizen opposition to international organizations a different form of popular resistance to economic globalization?

2.1 The argument

We argue here that this citizen non-support for IOs is based in large part on concerns about economic globalization. From the outset, we recognize this argument may not appear as particularly counter-intuitive since international trade, a key feature of economic globalization, includes many prominent inter-governmental organizations (e.g., the WTO, the EU, the North American Free Trade Agreement). But this fact alone cannot establish the relationship between IO attitudes and concerns about economic globalization writ large since most citizens appear to know very little either about international regimes or about international trade (Eichenberg 2016; Holsti 2004; Bauer et al. 1968). And even if it seems obvious that ill-informed citizens would nonetheless make some connection between IOs and various international economic forces, this possibility still needs to be established, especially in a new research program on populist nationalism as it relates to international organizations. In this regard, it is important to consider what we should be able to observe *if* the variation in IO attitudes is driven by the forces of economic globalization. Thus, a primary goal in this subsection will be to offer a set of testable hypotheses.

Our argument that citizen attitudes about international organizations map largely onto their attitudes about economic globalization is not based on individuals being able to understand the connection between IOs and the various globalized economic flows. Indeed, such an argument would be problematic for at least two different reasons. First, it requires a level of knowledge that most members of the mass public simply do not seem to possess (Hiscox 2006; Guisinger 2009). People typically learn about international economics and international organizations in college, and based on our ISSP survey data, a majority of respondents do not even attend college, much less complete it.

Second, if citizens had more knowledge about international economics and organizations, then they might come to realize that at least two key features of economic globalization, namely international labor and capital mobility, are not strongly facilitated or regulated by IOs (unlike for international trade). International labor mobility lacks much regulation or even coordination at the international level (Hollified 2000),¹⁵ being governed largely by policies set and enforced at the national level.¹⁶ Conversely, international capital mobility emerged despite an international agreement at the Bretton Woods conference to constrain it (Goodman and Pauly 1993) and remains largely unregulated at the international level (Frieden 2006, 463–4; Rodrik 2011, 263–6). Based on this understanding, citizens hurt by international labor and capital flows might even be expected *to favor* (and not to oppose) IOs as a possible means to help redistribute international migration pressures away from their country and/or regulate international capital movements.

Instead, our argument is based on citizen ignorance about these various international economic flows and the presence (or absence) of international organizations related to them. We do assume that citizens can, at least indirectly, feel international economic pressure, especially as it relates to their job and income. But they cannot clearly relate this job/income pressure to *specific* international flows (either immigration, trade, or capital flows) or to *particular* IOs. From this ignorance, we argue that citizens largely tend to group things that appear as “international” or “foreign” such as cross-border flows and international institutions of all types (including, but not limited to, economic IOs). While they might feel positively or negatively about various international factors, this grouping implies that they should view them similarly, based on what they can feel from the international level, namely as it relates to their job and income. Citizens who are hurt by globalization should thus not only view

¹⁵ As Triandafyllidou (2017, 215) described the International Organization of Migration: “There is no formal institutionalised framework for the governance of international migration in the way for instance that it exists for trade.... Institutions like the International Organization for Migration (IOM) while transnational in nature are mainly service providers depending on individual states for their services.” As Thomas (2016, 899) similarly discussed, “the International Organization of Migration (IOM)... [is] not a treaty-based organization (like the UN or World Trade Organization (WTO)), despite the name, but an agency established by governments for the purpose of managing migrant resettlement and return.”

¹⁶ The obvious and important exception here is the EU’s free movement of workers, which regulates immigration policy *among EU member-states*. But each EU member-state sets its own national immigration policy vis-à-vis non-member-states.

these various international economic flows in an unfavorable light, they should also express more negative views about international organizations.¹⁷ Conversely, citizens who are either better positioned to adjust to external economic pressure or actually benefit from economic globalization should have more favorable attitudes about IOs.

This argument clearly implies a correlation among attitudes related to various international factors. But showing that international attitudes correlate with other international attitudes is not, at least by itself, a particularly interesting or compelling test for our argument (Fordham and Kleinberg 2012). So instead we consider how a *material* factor, helping to identify whether an individual is more or less advantaged by the various flows related to economic globalization, might influence attitudes towards IOs. Especially in more developed national economies, individuals with more education arguably benefit from economic globalization. This conclusion follows from a factorial framework where a country successfully trades from production using its abundant factors with human capital, or education, being a relatively abundant factor in most advanced industrial democracies (Alt et al. 1996).¹⁸ Correspondingly, individuals with less skill, or education, are arguably hurt not only by import competition (from foreign producers with lower labor costs) but also by immigration given the low skill composition of the global labor pool (Docquier et al. 2011; Dumont et al. 2010).

If we also consider factor *mobility* (and not simply factor *abundance*), then one can see how more educated individuals potentially benefit from economic globalization even in less developed national economies. In terms of cross-border migration, there are more opportunities for high skill workers; indeed, there is even international competition to attract educated workers (Shachar 2006) unlike for the global market for low skill labor (Ruhs and Martin 2008). And in terms of domestic migration across sectors, more educated workers could shift down to lower-skill positions when they lose their job, but less educated workers cannot so easily or quickly shift up to higher-skill positions,¹⁹ thus making the former better positioned than the latter to absorb global economic pressure even in national economies where high skill labor is not so abundant.

Since we assume that individuals feel international economic pressure based on their skill level with more educated individuals generally experiencing greater benefits or fewer costs associated with international labor mobility, international trade, and even international capital mobility, we also expect education to influence individual-level attitudes about international organizations in a similar direction. We thus advance our first hypothesis (H1) concerning the effect of skill: *individuals with more (less) education should hold more (less) favorable attitudes about international organizations.*

¹⁷ It is important to note that this expectation differs from the one advanced by Ecker-Ehrhardt (2012, 486), arguing that “most societies tend to support internationalized governance” and proposing that economic interdependence should generally increase citizen support for IOs. Similarly, Tsai (2017, 327) posits that IO support should increase “when an individual becomes more exposed to globalization.”

¹⁸ In a factorial framework with four factors (low skill labor, high skill labor, capital and land), education is typically used as a proxy for human capital, helping to separate high skill from low skill labor. Income may be correlated with education, but it better proxies capital with wealthier individuals having greater endowments of this factor.

¹⁹ The factorial framework assumes that factors can move across sectors. This assumption is more immediately true for high skill labor, but may be true only in the long run for low skill labor.

Since H1 only takes advantage of the variation at the individual-level based on skill, but we assume that individuals can feel national-level pressure related to economic globalization, we also offer a second general hypothesis (H2) that considers the conditional impact of national-level factors: the education effect on, or association with, attitudes about international organizations should increase in countries that are more and/or less-favorably exposed to economic globalization. Since H2 is written generally, we need to restate it for the three specific features related to globalization (e.g., international labor mobility, international trade, and international capital mobility).

In terms of international labor mobility, we expect that individuals with less skill should hold even more negative attitudes about international organizations where there is more immigrant labor competition. Stated differently, in countries where there is less immigration and therefore reduced low skill labor competition, less educated individuals should have more positive attitudes about IOs, thus making their attitudes more similar to those with more education (i.e., a smaller education effect). On this basis, we posit H2a: *the education effect on attitudes about international organizations should increase (decrease) in countries with more (less) immigrants.*

In terms of international trade, in countries where there is more domestic market openness and therefore greater competition with lower-cost foreign producers, we expect that individuals with less skill should have even more negative attitudes about IOs, thus increasing their attitudinal difference compared to those with more skill. Conversely, less educated individuals should have somewhat more positive attitudes about international organizations where there is more trade protection, sheltering them from the effects of lower-cost foreign production and thus making their IO attitudes more similar to those with more education. We thus posit H2b: *the education effect on attitudes about international organizations should increase (decrease) in countries that have more (less) open trade policies.*

Since capital mobility can be considered a structural feature of the international political economy (Andrews 1994), meaning that all countries are basically exposed on this dimension, the more interesting variation concerns the direction of capital flows: in or out of the national economy. Inward capital flows indicate investment, potentially bringing jobs to lower skilled workers. Conversely, outward capital flows, including off-shoring/out-sourcing, have the reverse effect, jeopardizing the employment and income especially for this same group. On this basis, less educated individuals should have even more unfavorable attitudes about IOs where there is less inward investment, thus increasing the attitude difference based on education. Conversely, those with less education should be more supportive of IOs (like those with more education) where there is more inward investment, thus attenuating the impact of education. H2c therefore posits that *the education effect on attitudes about international organizations should increase (decrease) in countries with lesser (greater) inward investment.*

2.2 The model

We test these hypotheses using data from the most recent (2013) wave of the ISSP's National Identity module, which asked respondents across 32 countries all three IO queries (*IO Enforcement*, *IO Compliance*, and *IO Threat*). Since we want our dependent variable to capture each of these dimensions, our attitudinal measure includes information from all three queries using inverse covariance weighting (ICW). Assuming that

there is one latent variable of interest (e.g., support for IOs), ICW creates an optimal weighted average from a set of related indicators, upweighting those where the covariance is low (i.e., they provide unique information) and downweighting indicators where the covariance is high (i.e., they provide little new information). Since all three input queries are measured using the same scale with more positive IO attitudes marked by higher values, our attitudinal index dependent variable is labeled *Pro IO*.

Our primary independent variable is *Education*, a 7-point ordinal indicator of one's level of education: no formal = 0, primary school = 1, lower secondary = 2, upper secondary = 3, post-secondary but non-tertiary = 4, lower-level tertiary = 5, and upper-level tertiary = 6.²⁰ With this material independent variable, we are trying to capture individual-level skill with the expectation that more skill, or more *Education*, should be positively associated with *Pro IO* attitudes. We recognize that education is an imperfect and noisy measure of skill across industries and countries, but this fact is more likely to create a Type II error, or false negative. A bigger concern, and one more likely to create a Type I error (false positive), is that education is also likely correlated with pro-international socialization (Hainmueller and Hiscox 2006).

Since there is no way to clean socialization from our *Education* variable, we need to control for both positive and negative "international" attitudes that might be socialized in or out through education. We thus include two attitudinal variables as controls. Based on the expectation that education may socialize individuals to be less nationalistic, and thus more favorable to international factors, we first control for *Nationalism* using the respondent's answer to the following query: "I would rather be a citizen of [COUNTRY] than of any other country in the world."²¹ Second, based on the expectation that education may directly socialize pro-international, or global, values, we also control for *Cosmopolitanism* using the respondent's answer to the following query: "I feel more like a citizen of the world than of any country."²²

We recognize that IO attitudes may also be determined by political partisanship, with the expectation that in the current populist environment, those on the political right, especially the far right, should be more opposed to international organizations regardless of their labor skill. We thus include three partisan dummy variables: *Leftist* indicating those who reported as voting for a left-wing party in the last general election, *Rightist* indicating those who reported as voting for a non-fascist right-wing party in the last general election, and *Far Right*, separating out those who reported as voting for a fascist party in the last general election.²³

Since *Education*, our primary independent variable, is not randomly assigned to respondents, we also need to control for a set of material factors that might select individuals into different levels of educational attainment. These begin with *Income*, indicating the respondent's household income, measured in terms of 2013 American dollars, calculated from national currency units using its exchange rate versus the American dollar. We next include *Employed*, a dichotomous variable indicating if the respondent is currently working.²⁴ Our material independent variables also include *Age*

²⁰ GESIS 2015, 202.

²¹ GESIS 2015, 43.

²² GESIS 2015, 97.

²³ GESIS 2015, 350.

²⁴ If one is more concerned that *Income* and *Employed* capture post-treatment effects, rather than *Education* selection factors, we can report that our results are robust to their exclusion.

and *Male*, a dummy variable coded as 1 for respondents who report as identifying with this gender. Finally, *Urban* is a dummy variable coded as 1 for respondents who report as living in an urban area.

Descriptive statistics for all of these individual-level variables are reported in the appendix as Table 7. This table also includes the descriptive statistics for other attitudinal dependent variables that will be considered later, along with the national-level variables that will be interacted with *Education*. With variation at both the individual and national levels, we estimate multi-level, or mixed effects, models with country random effects and standard errors clustered on the country.

2.3 Testing H1

Table 2 presents our estimates of *Pro IO* attitudes testing the first hypothesis that individuals with more education should hold more favorable attitudes about international organizations. Consistent with H1, *Education* enters with a statistically significant positive sign (0.057) in model 2.1, indicating that individuals with more skill, or human capital, express attitudes that are generally more supportive of international organizations. Furthermore, the effect of *Education* on *Pro IO* attitudes is substantively large. Using the results from model 2.1, the second column in Table 2 provides the estimated effect of a one standard deviation (S.D.) increase in each independent variable. Using this metric, not only is the effect of *Education* larger than any of the other material variables (*Income*, *Employed*, *Age*, *Male*, and *Urban*), its substantive impact is greater than any of the partisanship variables (*Leftist*, *Rightist*, and *Far Right*) and also stronger than the attitudinal control *Nationalism*. In fact, only *Cosmopolitanism* shows a larger substantive effect than *Education*. But its strong association with *Pro IO* should not be surprising given that both variables are attitudes about the international level, and we should expect to observe a high correlation when one attitude (*Pro IO*) is regressed on another similar attitude (*Cosmopolitanism*).²⁵

In response to these results, one might argue that even with the attitudinal control variables (*Nationalism* and *Cosmopolitanism*), *Education* still picks up on socialized attitudes about IOs and not primarily on individual-level skill. So in model 2.2, we conduct a standard test in the political economy behavioral literature (e.g., Scheve and Slaughter 2001, Mayda 2006, Hainmueller and Hiscox 2007) for determining if the education variable is behaving consistent with labor skill by comparing its marginal effect for those who are currently working (*Employed* = 1) to those who are not (*Employed* = 0). If *Education* is capturing individual-level skill, as desired, then we should be able to observe that its marginal effect is significantly greater for those who are currently in the workforce and therefore more directly exposed to international economic forces. If *Education* is only picking up on other socialized attitudes about IOs (beyond those captured by *Nationalism* and *Cosmopolitanism*, then we should observe no significant difference across these two groups.

²⁵ If one is concerned that our individual-level controls, intended to capture factors that select individuals into different levels of *Education*, are instead only measuring post-treatment effects, then we present another version of model 2.1 in the first column of Table 8 in the Appendix. Without these individual-level control variables, the *Education* coefficient increases by more than 20%.

Table 2 Models of *Pro IO* testing H1

	2.1	1 S.D. Increase	2.2	2.3
Education	0.057*** (0.015)	0.090	0.038*** (0.015)	-0.62*** (0.12)
Nationalism	-0.066*** (0.011)	-0.069	-0.066*** (0.011)	-0.064*** (0.011)
Cosmopolitanism	0.083*** (0.013)	0.101	0.084*** (0.013)	0.084*** (0.013)
Leftist	0.014 (0.036)	0.006	0.014 (0.036)	0.012 (0.035)
Rightist	-0.062* (0.035)	-0.026	-0.063* (0.035)	-0.064* (0.035)
Far Right	-0.456*** (0.145)	-0.055	-0.451*** (0.146)	-0.444*** (0.143)
Income	0.00008*** (0.00003)	0.017	0.00008*** (0.00002)	0.00007*** (0.00002)
Employed	0.016 (0.021)	0.008	-0.096** (0.048)	0.009 (0.022)
Education*Employed			0.034*** (0.011)	
Marginal effect of Education when Employed = 1			0.072*** (0.017)	
Age	-0.0002 (0.0008)	-0.003	-0.0003 (0.0008)	-0.0004 (0.0008)
Male	0.025 (0.018)	0.013	0.029* (0.018)	0.027 (0.017)
Urban	0.068*** (0.026)	0.034	0.068*** (0.026)	0.069*** (0.026)
GDPpchl				-0.223*** (0.043)
Education*GDPpchl				0.067*** (0.012)
Constant	-0.017 (0.066)		0.037 (0.063)	2.23*** (0.42)
X ²	93.31***		104.64***	120.24***

$N = 27,078$

Multi-level estimates with random effects and standard errors clustered on the country

Statistical significance: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$ (two tailed)

Model 2.2 thus interacts *Education* with the dichotomous *Employed* control variable. With this interaction, the *Education* constitutive term measures the effect of greater educational attainment for those outside of the workforce (*Employed* = 0), which we expect to be positively signed. The *Employed* constitutive term captures the effect of being employed but with no educational attainment (i.e., *Education* = 0), which we expect to have a strong negative coefficient (i.e., those who are the most vulnerable to international economic pressure based on their very low skill level should be much less *Pro IO*). And if the education variable is picking up on economic

vulnerability, then the *Education*Employed* interaction term should be positively signed and statistically significant. The results strongly accord with all of these expectations. Most importantly, the marginal effect of *Education* is almost twice as large for those who are currently employed (0.072) compared to those who are not (0.038) as given by the statistically significant interaction term (0.034).

Another test that becomes possible with our cross-national sample to determine if *Education* is capturing vulnerability to international economic forces based on one's skill level comes from interacting *Education* with a national-level variable measuring the country's level of economic development, namely Gross Domestic Product per capita (GDPpc). The argument for why less skilled individuals are more vulnerable to globalization pressures in developed national economies was based in part on this factor's scarcity. Low skill labor is relatively scarce in most developed economies, but it should be even scarcer in the most developed national economies, thus creating a larger IO attitude difference between those with less versus more skill (i.e., a greater positive *Education* effect on *Pro IO* attitudes in countries where GDPpc is higher). Conversely, if *Education* is only measuring socialized attitudes, then we should not be able to observe any significant effect conditional on the country's level of economic development; individuals with more *Education* should be more *Pro IO* regardless of their country's endowment of high versus low skill labor as proxied by GDPpc.

In model 2.3, we interact *Education* with the logged value of GDPpc (*GDPpcln*).²⁶ With this interaction term, the *Education* constitutive term measures the effect of greater educational attainment for those living in countries with no economic development (i.e., *GDPpcln* = 0). Of course, this value for *GDPpcln* is far out of sample, but it effectively marks a country that would be very scarce in high skill labor, which should make those with more education into the group that is more hurt by economic globalization, especially from free trade. On this basis, the *Education* constitutive term might be expected to take on a negative sign, indicating that those with higher skill actually becomes less supportive of IOs than those with lower skill consistent with the former's greater vulnerability as the scarce labor type. The *GDPpcln* constitutive term captures the effect of greater economic development for those with the least skill (*Education* = 0), which we also expect to be negatively signed to show that this group becomes even more opposed to IOs with the greater low skill labor scarcity associated with economic development. Finally, the *Education*GDPpcln* interaction term should take on a positive sign, indicating that the positive *Education* effect on *Pro IO* attitudes grows as high skill (low skill) labor becomes more abundant (scarce).

The results in model 2.3 are consistent with these expectations, but given that *GDPpcln* is a continuous variable (unlike *Employed*), it becomes useful to plot the marginal effect of *Education* across the range of values for *GDPpcln* within our cross-national sample. As shown in Fig. 1, the marginal effect of *Education* is 0.059 at the mean value of *GDPpcln* (10.2) in our sample, which accords with the unconditional estimate for *Education* in model 2.1. But this marginal effect significantly grows with greater economic development, almost doubling to 0.119 for the maximum value of *GDPpcln* (11.1).

Having shown support for our first hypothesis and demonstrated that *Education* is behaving consistent with labor skill, we now turn to testing our second set of

²⁶ World Bank 2016.

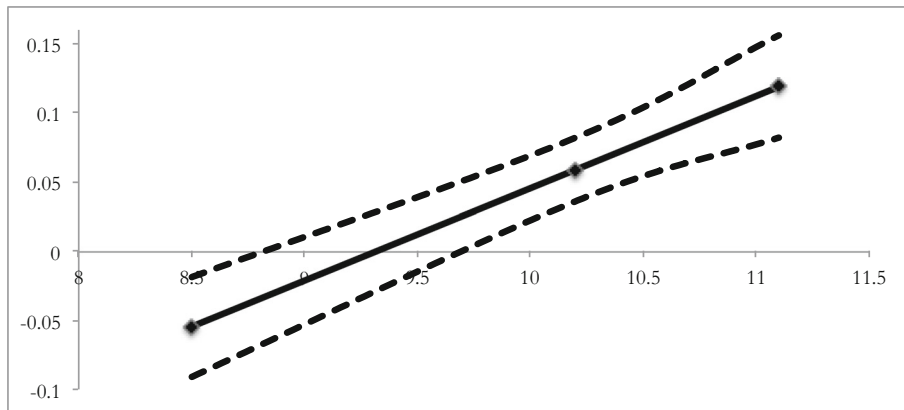


Fig. 1 The Marginal Effect of *Education* Conditioned on *GDPpcIn*. The y-axis provides the marginal effect of *Education*. The x-axis indicates the value of *GDPpcIn*. Dashed lines are 95% confidence intervals. Diamonds on the solid marginal effect line indicates minimum, mean, and maximum value for *GDPpcIn* from Table 7

hypotheses, which posit that the *Education* effect on *Pro IO* should vary based on national-level factors directly related to economic globalization, namely immigration, trade openness, and international investment.

2.4 Testing H2

H2a posited that the education effect on IO attitudes should increase (decrease) in countries with more (less) immigrants. To proxy the extent of immigration into the national economy, we measure the country's *Immigrant Share* as a percent of the total population in 2010, the closest year prior to the administration of this survey instrument (in 2013) since these data are only available every 5 years.²⁷ When interacted with *Education*, we expect that the positive sign on (non-interacted) *Education* in the earlier specification should shift to the *Education*Immigrant Share* interaction term. Indeed, the *Education* constitutive term may even become insignificant since it now captures the education difference in *Pro IO* attitudes when *Immigrant Share* = 0, indicating no globalization pressure based on this specific feature.

H2b predicted that the education effect on IO attitudes should increase (decrease) in countries that have more (less) open trade policies. To operationalize trade openness, we use the weighted most favored nation (MFN) *Tariff Rate* across all products in 2013.²⁸ When interacted with *Education*, we expect the *Education*Tariff Rate* interaction term to be negatively signed, indicating that the education effect attenuates with more trade protection. Conversely, the *Education* constitutive term should be strongly positive, indicating a large skill difference in attitudes when the domestic market is completely open to foreign producers.

Finally, H2c posited that the education effect on IO attitudes should increase (decrease) in countries with lesser (greater) inward investment. To capture *Investment Inflows*, we focus on inward direct and other investment as a share of GDP in 2013.²⁹

²⁷ World Bank 2016.

²⁸ World Bank 2016.

²⁹ International Monetary Fund 2016.

More positive values for *Investment Inflows* indicate greater capital inflows in terms of foreign direct and other investment (primarily bank loans), the two investment categories that can be most directly linked to job creation (unlike more speculative portfolio investment). A negative value for *Investment Inflows* indicates capital outflows associated with these investment categories. When interacted with *Education*, we expect the interaction term to be negatively signed, indicating that the skill difference in attitudes gets smaller with greater inward investment. A negatively signed interaction terms also implies that the skill difference gets larger with capital outflows, marked by negative values for *Investment Inflows*.

So that the individual-level *Education* constitutive term can be clearly interpreted (i.e., the effect of *Education* when a single national-level variable is equal to zero), these hypotheses are considered sequentially in Table 3: model 3.1 tests H2a, model 3.2 tests H2b, and model 3.3 tests H2c. We also provide a parallel set of multi-level random effects estimates without the individual-level control variables in Table 8 in the appendix for those concerned that these *Education* selectors may create post-treatment bias.

The interaction results in Table 3 are best demonstrated visually. In Fig. 2, we plot the marginal effect of *Education* on *Pro IO* attitudes from model 3.1 for the full range of *Immigrant Share* values within our 32-country sample. At the mean value for this national-level variable (8.7), the marginal effect of *Education* is 0.057, which is identical to the average effect of *Education* observed in model 2.1. But at our maximum value for *Immigrant Share* (26.5), this marginal effect more than doubles to 0.151, consistent with H2a. At both points, these marginal effects are statistically significant with greater than 99% confidence. Conversely, this labor skill effect on *Pro IO* attitudes largely disappears with a value of *Immigrant Share* that is less than 4% of the total population, which accords with our expectation that in countries with fewer immigrants, less skilled citizens should be less opposed to IOs compared to more skilled citizens, thus resulting in a smaller attitude difference based on education.³⁰

In Fig. 3, we plot the marginal effect of *Education* across the full range of *Tariff Rate* values in our 32-country sample from model 3.2. At the mean value for this national-level variable (3.3), the marginal effect of *Education* is 0.059, which is very close to the average effect of *Education* observed in model 2.1. But in countries with a more open trade policy, the *Education* effect grows; indeed, when *Tariff Rate* is equal to zero, the marginal effect of *Education* almost triples to 0.146. Conversely, in national contexts with a more closed trade policy (i.e., higher tariffs), where lower-skilled citizens should feel a lesser threat to their job and income from this specific feature of economic globalization, the marginal effect of *Education* on *Pro IO* attitudes diminishes consistent with H2b, even losing statistical significance as the *Tariff Rate* approaches five.³¹

³⁰ Weakly consistent with H2a, the *Immigrant Share* constitutive term, capturing the effect of more immigration for those with the least skill (*Education* = 0), is negatively signed in model 3.1. This result is statistically significant using a one-tailed test, which would be appropriate given our directional hypothesis.

³¹ In accord with H2b, the *Tariff Rate* constitutive term takes on a statistically significant positive sign (0.111) in model 3.2, showing that even the least skilled individuals become more supportive of IOs with more trade protection.

Table 3 Models of *Pro IO* testing H2

	3.1 H2a	3.2 H2b	3.3 H2c
Education	0.012 (0.021)	0.146*** (0.022)	0.056*** (0.013)
Nationalism	−0.065*** (0.012)	−0.064*** (0.012)	−0.065*** (0.012)
Cosmopolitanism	0.083*** (0.013)	0.083*** (0.013)	0.083*** (0.014)
Leftist	0.013 (0.035)	0.015 (0.035)	0.013 (0.036)
Rightist	−0.066* (0.035)	−0.069** (0.035)	−0.063* (0.034)
Far Right	−0.451*** (0.144)	−0.447*** (0.142)	−0.449*** (0.144)
Income	0.00008*** (0.00002)	0.00008*** (0.00002)	0.00008*** (0.00002)
Employed	0.011 (0.021)	0.006 (0.022)	0.013 (0.021)
Age	−0.0004 (0.0008)	−0.0006 (0.0007)	−0.0003 (0.0008)
Male	0.028 (0.018)	0.031* (0.018)	0.027 (0.017)
Urban	0.071*** (0.025)	0.069*** (0.025)	0.069*** (0.026)
Immigrant Share	−0.016 (0.011)	0.003 (0.005)	0.003 (0.005)
Tariff Rate	0.024 (0.015)	0.111*** (0.018)	0.023 (0.015)
Investment Inflows	0.0001 (0.005)	0.0004 (0.0054)	0.019** (0.008)
Education*Immigrant Share	0.005** (0.002)		
Education*Tariff Rate		−0.026*** (0.004)	
Education*Investment Inflows			−0.005*** (0.002)
Constant	0.030 (0.126)	−0.412*** (0.116)	−0.119 (0.103)
X ²	150.73	208.48***	126.99***

$N = 27,078$

Multi-level estimates with random effects and standard errors clustered on the country

Statistical significance: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$ (two tailed)

Finally in Fig. 4, we plot the marginal effect of *Education* from model 3.3 across the full range of country values for *Investment Inflows*. At the mean value for this national-level conditioning variable in our 32-country sample

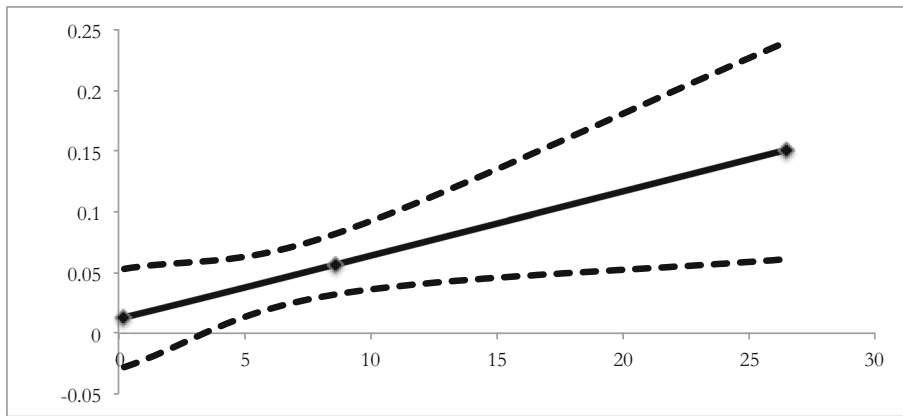


Fig. 2 The Marginal Effect of *Education* Conditioned on *Immigrant Share*. The y-axis provides the marginal effect of *Education*. The x-axis indicates the value of *Immigrant Share*. Dashed lines are 95% confidence intervals. Diamonds on the solid marginal effect line indicates minimum, mean, and maximum value for *Immigrant Share* from Table 7

(−0.2), the marginal effect of *Education* is 0.057, which is again identical to the average *Education* effect observed in model 2.1. But with more outward flowing capital (i.e., more negative values for *Inward Investment*), this marginal effect grows, more than doubling to 0.135 at our sample’s minimum value (−15.4) for this national-level variable. Conversely, the positive relationship between *Education* and *Pro IO* attitudes attenuates with larger values of this conditioning national-level variable, becoming statistically insignificant when *Investment Inflows* is greater than 4% of GDP, consistent with H2c.³²

2.5 Globalization attitudes

Although not explicitly stated as hypotheses in this paper, our argument about how citizens tend to group “international things,” especially IOs and cross-border economic flows, implies that not only should attitudes about international organizations be correlated with attitudes about various dimensions of economic globalization (e.g., immigration, trade, and foreign investment), but that the same combination of factors predicting *Pro IO* attitudes should also predict more favorable attitudes related to economic globalization. Stated differently, we should be able to observe that *Education* and its interaction with a national-level feature related to economic globalization should be associated with more favorable attitudes related to that feature in the same way that it was associated with *Pro IO* attitudes in Table 3. Making this demonstration is important given our argument that citizens form their IO attitudes based largely on the *economic* pressure or opportunity that they can feel from the international level.

³² Also consistent with H2c, the *Investment Inflows* constitutive term takes on a statistically significant positive sign (0.019) in model 3.3, indicating that even the least skilled individuals (*Education* = 0) become more *Pro IO* with more inward investment.

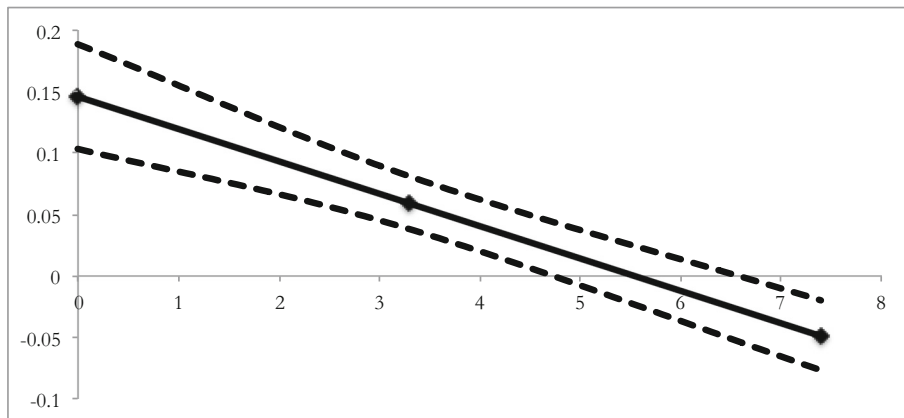


Fig. 3 The Marginal Effect of Education Conditioned on Tariff Rate. The y-axis provides the marginal effect of Education. The x-axis indicates the value of the Tariff Rate. Dashed lines are 95% confidence intervals. Diamonds on the solid marginal effect line indicates minimum, mean, and maximum value for Tariff Rate from Table 7

Fortunately, the ISSP's National Identity module has questions related to all three dimensions of economic globalization that were considered as national-level factors in Table 3. To capture citizen attitudes about immigration openness, we use the query "Do you think the number of immigrants to [COUNTRY] nowadays should be..."³³ to create an attitudinal dependent variable labeled *Favor Immigration*, coded as 4 if respondents selected increased a lot, 3 if increased a little, 2 if it should remain the same, 1 if decreased a little, and 0 if they chose decreased a lot. For citizen attitudes about trade openness, we take their response to the statement that "[COUNTRY] should limit the import of foreign products in order to protect its national economy"³⁴ to create a dependent variable labeled *Favor Free Trade*, coded as 4 if they disagreed strongly, 3 if they disagreed, 2 if they neither agreed nor disagreed, 1 if they agreed, and 0 if they agreed strongly with this statement.

Finally, to capture attitudes related to foreign investment, we use the query "Foreigners should not be allowed to buy land in [COUNTRY]"³⁵ to create the dependent variable labeled *Favor Foreign Investment*, coded as 4 if they disagreed strongly, 3 if they disagreed, 2 if they neither agreed nor disagreed, 1 if they agreed, and 0 if they agreed strongly with this statement. Descriptive statistics for these attitudinal dependent variables appear in Table 7 in the appendix. We also show in Table 4 how *Pro IO* attitudes, our dependent variable in Table 3, are positively and significantly correlated with favorable attitudes about these three different dimensions of economic globalization (*Favor Immigration*, *Favor Free Trade*, and *Favor Foreign Investment*).³⁶

In Table 5, we follow the same sequence of models as shown in Table 3 based on the right-hand side specification, but now replacing the *Pro IO* attitude dependent variable with the economic attitude that corresponds with each globalization feature. This

³³ GESIS 2015, 121.

³⁴ GESIS 2015, 79.

³⁵ GESIS 2015, 85.

³⁶ These significant positive correlations are present not only for individuals without a college degree (*Education* ≤ 4) but also for those with at least a college degree (*Education* ≥ 5).

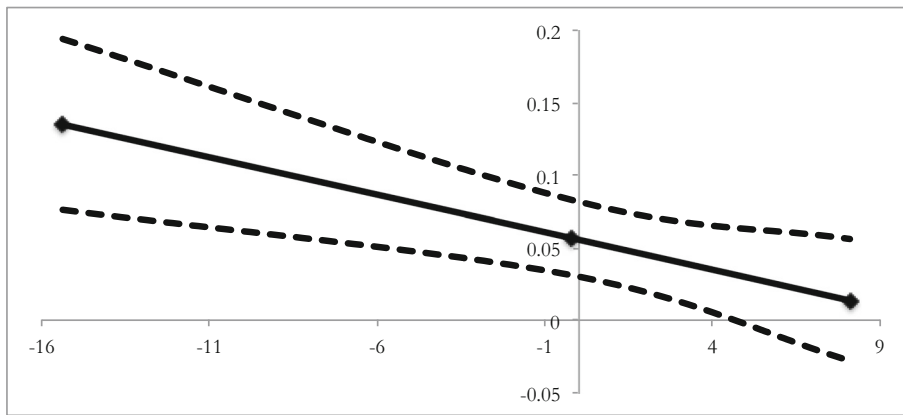


Fig. 4 The Marginal Effect of *Education* Conditioned on *Investment Inflows*. The y-axis provides the marginal effect of *Education*. The x-axis indicates the value of the *Investment Inflows*. Dashed lines are 95% confidence intervals. Diamonds on the solid marginal effect line indicates minimum, mean, and maximum value for *Investment Inflows* from Table 7

structure thus matches *Favor Immigration* (as the dependent variable) with *Immigrant Share* (as the interaction variable) in model 5.1, *Favor Free Trade* with *Tariff Rate* in model 5.2, and *Favor Foreign Investment* with *Investment Inflows* in model 5.3. The goal here is to show how the same interaction of *Education* with the national-level globalization variable predicts favorable economic policy attitudes in much the same way as they predicted *Pro IO* attitudes in Table 3. Comparing across tables, one can observe how the signs on the *Education* constitutive and interaction terms are the same in Table 5 as they were in Table 3. And where they were significant in Table 3, they are also significant in Table 5.

With this demonstration, one can better see how the earlier results are consistent with the proposition that *Pro IO* attitudes effectively represent attitudes about economic globalization: the same combination of factors that predict more favorable attitudes about economic globalization similarly predict more positive attitudes about international organizations. Thus, as citizens feel about economic globalization based on their skill level, they also react to IOs as another, albeit less tangible, “international thing.”

2.6 National Power and IO attitudes

In arguing that IO attitudes are based largely on the economic pressure or opportunity that citizens can feel from the international level according to their skill level, it is also

Table 4 Bivariate correlations among the attitudinal dependent variables

	<i>Pro IO</i>	<i>Favor Immigration</i>	<i>Favor Free Trade</i>	<i>Favor Foreign Investment</i>
<i>Pro IO</i>	1.00			
<i>Favor Immigration</i>	0.16***	1.00		
<i>Favor Free Trade</i>	0.19***	0.16***	1.00	
<i>Favor Foreign Investment</i>	0.15***	0.17***	0.30***	1.00

Statistical significance: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$

Table 5 Models of globalization attitudes

	5.1	5.2	5.3
DV:	<i>Favor Immigration</i>	<i>Favor Free Trade</i>	<i>Favor Foreign Investment</i>
Education	0.021 (0.018)	0.166*** (0.026)	0.058*** (0.012)
Nationalism	-0.067*** (0.013)	-0.181*** (0.011)	-0.170*** (0.010)
Cosmopolitanism	0.095*** (0.020)	-0.047*** (0.013)	-0.005 (0.017)
Leftist	0.090** (0.037)	-0.015 (0.029)	0.022 (0.033)
Rightist	-0.145*** (0.044)	0.030 (0.028)	-0.078** (0.035)
Far Right	-0.626*** (0.159)	-0.329*** (0.109)	-0.653*** (0.204)
Income	0.00002 (0.00002)	0.00005 (0.00005)	0.00004** (0.00002)
Employed	-0.008 (0.019)	-0.006 (0.019)	0.037* (0.021)
Age	-0.0010 (0.0007)	-0.0032*** (0.0007)	-0.004*** (0.001)
Male	0.034* (0.019)	0.133*** (0.025)	0.005 (0.020)
Urban	0.027 (0.030)	0.114*** (0.024)	0.068*** (0.025)
Immigrant Share	-0.038*** (0.011)	-0.008 (0.009)	0.031* (0.018)
Tariff Rate	0.004 (0.044)	-0.018 (0.044)	-0.064 (0.052)
Investment Inflows	0.003 (0.010)	-0.003 (0.009)	0.0004 (0.0142)
Education* Immigrant Share	0.006*** (0.002)		
Education* Tariff Rate		-0.026*** (0.007)	
Education* Investment Inflows			-0.008*** (0.002)
Constant	1.53*** (0.23)	2.06*** (0.21)	2.17*** (0.31)
X ²	369.96***	1931.32***	1292.26***
N	27,784	29,464	29,398

Multi-level estimates with random effects and standard errors clustered on the country

Statistical significance: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$ (two tailed)

important to demonstrate that these attitudes are not similarly based on national power, or vary according to realist capability indicators. We consider this something like a placebo test: with an argument that IO attitudes are conditioned on international economic factors, it is useful to show that they are not also conditioned by national power.

To make this demonstration, we use two different measures of national power. The first is the logged value of Gross Domestic Product measured in current US dollars (*GDPln*).³⁷ The second is the country's Composite Index of National Capability score (*CINC*), measuring national power as a percent of global power based on total population, urban population, iron and steel production, energy consumption, military personnel, and military expenditures.³⁸ Descriptive statistics for these two national-level variables are presented in Table 7.

In Table 6, we add in sequence - since these two national power measures are collinear - each national power measure, interacting it with *Education* to parallel the structure used in Table 3 to estimate *Pro IO* attitudes. In model 6.1, one can observe that there is no significant interaction effect between *Education* and *GDPln*. As graphed in Fig. 5, the marginal effect of *Education* is effectively the same across the full range of values for this measure of national economic power. And in model 6.2, one can also observe that there is no significant effect when *Education* is interacted with *CINC*. Correspondingly in Fig. 6, the marginal effect of *Education* is relatively flat across the full range of *CINC* scores from zero to almost 14 (for the United States).

3 Discussion

This paper investigated popular attitudes about international organizations, asking two related questions. How supportive are popular attitudes and how can we explain these IO attitudes when the mass public appears to know very little about these international structures? Using survey data from the International Social Survey Programme's National Identity module, fielded across multiple countries in 1995, 2003, and 2013, we reported that, on average, citizen attitudes about IOs have become less positive over time, consistent with an anti-international populist trend in many developed democracies.

To explain these IO attitudes, we argued that citizens tend to group things appearing as "international," including cross-border economic flows and IOs. While citizens could feel positively or negatively about these various international factors, this grouping implies that they should view them similarly, based on what they can feel from the international level as it relates to their job and income. This logic suggests that less skilled citizens who are hurt by economic globalization should hold more negative views about IOs. Conversely, more skilled citizens who benefit from economic globalization should express more positive IO attitudes.

Controlling for cultural attitudes socialized through education, we found that labor skill is a statistically significant and substantively strong predictor of more positive IO attitudes. We also hypothesized that this individual-level skill difference should get larger in countries that are more and less-favorably exposed to economic globalization pressures. Consistent with this expectation, we also found that the education effect increased in countries with more immigration, decreased in countries with greater trade protection, and decreased in countries with more investment inflows. These results are hard to explain simply in terms of attitudes that might be socialized through education;

³⁷ World Bank 2016.

³⁸ Correlates of War 2017. To arrive at a percent, we multiply the *CINC* scores by 100.

Table 6 Additional models of *Pro IO*

	6.1	6.2
Education	-0.038 (0.212)	0.062*** (0.016)
Nationalism	-0.066*** (0.011)	-0.066*** (0.011)
Cosmopolitanism	0.084*** (0.013)	0.083*** (0.013)
Leftist	0.014 (0.036)	0.014 (0.036)
Rightist	-0.062* (0.035)	-0.062* (0.035)
Far Right	-0.454*** (0.145)	-0.454*** (0.145)
Income	0.00008*** (0.00002)	0.00008*** (0.00003)
Employed	0.016 (0.021)	0.015 (0.021)
Age	-0.0002 (0.0008)	-0.0002 (0.0008)
Male	0.025 (0.018)	0.026 (0.017)
Urban	0.069*** (0.026)	0.067*** (0.026)
GDPIn	-0.003 (0.028)	
CINC		0.028 (0.023)
Education*GDPIn	0.004 (0.008)	
Education*CINC		-0.004 (0.006)
Constant	0.054 (0.743)	-0.057 (0.079)
X ²	97.98***	138.39***

$N = 27,078$

Multi-level estimates with random effects and standard errors clustered on the country

Statistical significance: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$ (two tailed)

instead, they suggest that individuals base their attitudes about IOs on their experience related to international economics. In this sense, IO attitudes largely reflect attitudes about economic globalization.

We now conclude with a discussion of the policy implications associated with these results. First, it seems clear that the mass public is increasingly non-supportive of international organizations, contrary to the view of many elites that these structures have provided both greater economic stability and military security since the end of, and even during, the Cold War. It seems unlikely that the mass public was ever highly supportive of

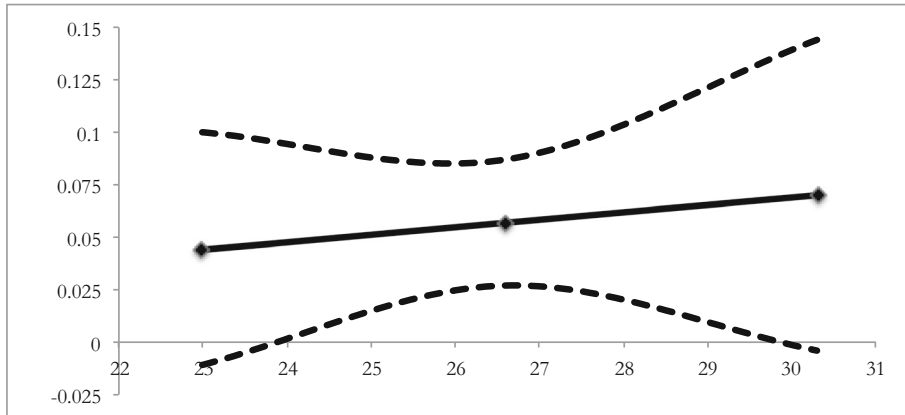


Fig. 5 The Marginal Effect of Education Conditioned on *GDPIn*. The y-axis provides the marginal effect of Education. The x-axis indicates the value of the *GDPIn*. Dashed lines are 95% confidence intervals. Diamonds on the solid marginal effect line indicates minimum, mean, and maximum value for *GDPIn* from Table 7

IOs, but their general ignorance and indifference allowed elites to create, maintain, and even upgrade international institutions, facilitating cooperation among sovereign nation-states over the last half-century or more. But in the twenty-first century, the relative indifference of the mass public towards IOs appears to be turning into resistance, even hostility. And if the continued participation of democratic governments in IOs requires a reduction of hostility within, if not active support among, the mass public, then elites will need to address citizen concerns about these international regimes.

But second, if we understand citizen opposition to IOs as being driven by their concerns about economic globalization, then we might have a very rudimentary map for addressing this popular non-support. The understanding that anti-IO attitudes among the less skilled comes primarily from the negative job and income effects that they can feel from the various cross-border economic flows related to globalization suggests that elitist arguments about IOs (e.g., they reduce transaction costs and provide

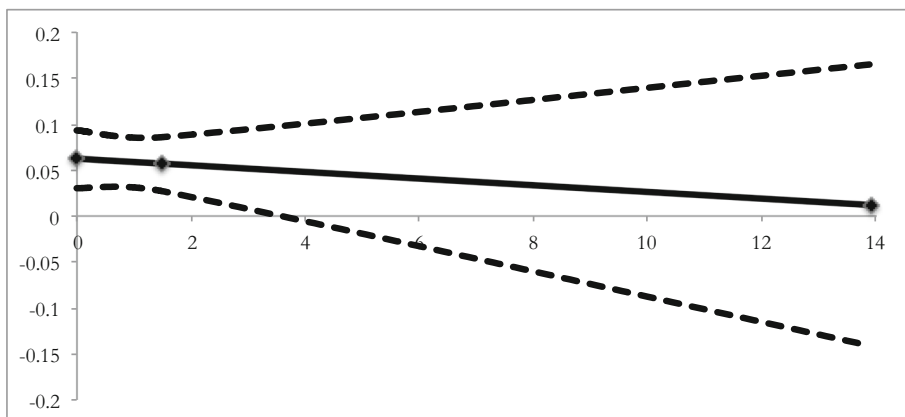


Fig. 6 The Marginal Effect of Education Conditioned on *CINC*. The y-axis provides the marginal effect of Education. The x-axis indicates the value of the *CINC*. Dashed lines are 95% confidence intervals. Diamonds on the solid marginal effect line indicates minimum, mean, and maximum value for *CINC* from Table 7

greater information, facilitating decentralized enforcement and lengthening the shadow of the future) are not likely to be persuasive when directed at this audience. Instead, elites may need to reduce citizen concerns about economic globalization. Perhaps this can be done with information campaigns or through worker training programs, greater unemployment insurance, and other compensation programs for those disadvantaged by economic openness (Hays et al. 2005; Scheve and Slaughter 2007). But these possibilities, not explored within this paper, merit further theoretical consideration and empirical testing.

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Appendix

Table 7 Descriptive statistics

	Mean	S.D.	Min.	Max.
Individual-level				
Pro IO	0.16	1.01	−2.39	3.05
Education	3.38	1.59	0	6
Nationalism	3.00	1.04	0	4
Cosmopolitanism	1.79	1.22	0	4
Leftist	0.23	0.42	0	1
Rightist	0.23	0.42	0	1
Far Right	0.02	0.12	0	1
Income (thousands)	50	214	0	14,340
Employed	0.55	0.50	0	1
Age	47	17	15	96
Male	0.49	0.50	0	1
Urban	0.43	0.50	0	1
Favor Immigration	1.39	1.12	0	4
Favor Free Trade	1.57	1.18	0	4
Favor Foreign Investment	1.76	1.32	0	4
National-level				
GDPpcIn	10.2	0.6	8.5	11.1
Immigrant Share	8.7	6.6	0.2	26.5
Tariff Rate	3.3	1.9	0	7.4
Investment Inflows	−0.2	6.0	−15.4	8.1
GDPIn	26.6	1.7	23.0	30.3
CINC	1.5	2.9	0	13.9

Table 8 Testing H1, H2a, H2b, and H2c without individual-level controls

	H1	H2a	H2b	H2c
Education	0.069*** (0.016)	0.024 (0.022)	0.159*** (0.022)	0.068*** (0.014)
Immigrant Share		-0.014 (0.011)	0.004 (0.005)	0.005 (0.005)
Tariff Rate		0.037** (0.015)	0.124*** (0.018)	0.035** (0.015)
Investment Inflows		-0.0003 (0.0056)	-0.0008 (0.0055)	0.020** (0.008)
Education*Immigrant Share		0.005** (0.002)		
Education*Tariff Rate			-0.027*** (0.004)	
Education*Investment Inflows				-0.006*** (0.002)
Constant	-0.083 (0.064)	-0.095 (0.129)	-0.553*** (0.103)	-0.236** (0.103)
X ²	18.02***	44.24***	73.35***	52.62***

$N = 27,078$

Multi-level estimates with random effects and standard errors clustered on the country

Statistical significance: *** $p < 0.01$, ** $p < 0.05$, * $p < 0.1$ (two tailed)

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